Contents

1 Topology **3**
1.1 Topology . . . 3
1.2 Compact sets . . . 3

2 Complex Numbers **5**
2.1 Algebra of Complex Numbers . . . 5
2.2 Riemann sphere . . . 7
2.3 Limits and continuity . . . 7
2.4 Sequences and convergence . . . 7
2.5 Function spaces and power series . . . 8

3 Analytic Functions **9**
3.1 Differentiability . . . 9
3.2 Linear transformation . . . 9
3.3 Polynomials and rational functions . . . 12
3.4 Conformal maps . . . 13

4 Formal Power Series **15**
4.1 Algbraic definitions . . . 15
4.2 Introduction . . . 16
4.3 Formal Derivative . . . 17
4.4 Compositional inverse . . . 18
4.5 Power series . . . 18

Chapter 1

Topology

1.1 Topology

A set $N \subset S$ is called a neighbourhood of $x \in S$ if it contains a ball $B_r(x)$. A set is open if it is a neighbourhood of all its points. A point $x \in X$ is an isolated point if it has a neighbourhood whose intersection with X reduces to x. An accumulation point is a point that is not isolated.

Proposition 1.1. *A non-empty open set in plane is connected if and only if any two points can be joined by a polygon which lies in the set.*

Definition: A non-empty connected open set is called a region. A component or a maximal connected set of a set S is a connected subset which is not contained in any larger connected subset.

Proposition 1.2. *Every set has a unique decomposition into component.*

Proposition 1.3. *In $\mathbb{R}^n$ the components of any open set are open.*

Definition: A set A is dense in X if $\operatorname{cl} E = X$. A metric space is separable if there exists a countable subset union of disjoint regions. A topological space is locally connected if for each neighbourhood of its points there is a connected open subset for that neighbourhood. A metric space that open balls $B_r(x)$ are connected is locally connected.

Proposition 1.4. *In a locally connected separable space every open set is union of disjoint regions.*

Definition: A set S is totally bounded if for every $\epsilon > 0$, S can be covered by finitely many balls of radius ϵ.

1.2 Compact sets

Definition (Point of accumulation): point v is a **point of accumulation** for the sequence $\{z_n\}$ if for given $\epsilon > 0$ there exists infinitely many n such that

$$|z_n - v| < \epsilon$$

Similarly, a point of accumulation of an infinite set S is a point v that for each open set U containing v there are infinitely many elements of S.

Theorem 1.5 (Weierstrass-Bolzano theorem). *If S is an infinite bounded set of real numbers, then S has a point of accumulation.*

Definition: A **compact** set S is a set that every sequence of its elements has a point of accumulation in S. The following defintions are equivalent

1. Every infinite subset of S has a point of accumulation in S.
2. Every sequence of elements of S has a convergent subsequent whose limit is in S.

Theorem 1.6. *A complex set is compact if and only if it is closed and bounded.*

Theorem 1.7. *Let $S_1 \supset S_2 \supset \dots$ be a sequence of non-empty closed subsets of a compact set S. Then, the interestion of all S_n is not empty.*

Theorem 1.8. *Let S be a compact set and f be continuous function on S. Then the image of f is compact.*

Theorem 1.9. *Let S be a compact set and f be continuous function on S. Then f is uniformly continuous.*

Definition: Let A, B be two sets of complex numbers. The **distance** between them is

$$d(A, B) = \min_{\substack{\alpha \in A \\ \beta \in B}} |\alpha - \beta|$$

Theorem 1.10. *Let S be a closed set and let v be a complex number. There exists a point $w \in S$ such that*

$$d(S, \{v\}) = |w - v|$$

Theorem 1.11. *Let K be a compact set and let be S a closed set. Then, there are elements $\alpha \in K$ and $\beta \in S$ such that*

$$d(K, S) = |\alpha - \beta|$$

Theorem 1.12. *A set is compact if and only if it is complete and totally bounded.*

Corollary 1.13. *Let K be compact. Let r be a real number greater than zero. There exists a finite number of discs of radius r whose union contains K.*

We say that a family of open set $\{U_i\}$ covers a set S when for every $z \in S$, $z \in U_i$ for some i as well. A subcovering of S is a covering of S with a subfamily of $\{U_i\}$. If that subfamily is finite we say that it is a finite subcovering of S. S is **covering compact** if every open convering can reduce to a finite subcovering.

Theorem 1.14. *Let S be a set then S is sequentially comapct if and only if covering compact.*

Chapter 2

Complex Numbers

2.1 Algebra of Complex Numbers

We define complex numbers to be all the pairs of real numbers (x, y) with following addition and multiplication:

$$(x_1, y_1) +' (x_2, y_2) = (x_1 + x_2, y_1 + y_2)$$

$$(x_1, y_1) \cdot' (x_2, y_2) = (x_1x_2 - y_1y_2, x_1y_2 + x_2y_1)$$

where $+$ and $\cdot$ are real addition and multiplication, respectively. We denote the set of complex numbers with $\mathbb{C}$. It is easy to check that addition and multiplication defined above have the following:

1. Addition and multiplication are commutitive:

$$z + w = w + z \quad z, w \in \mathbb{C}$$

$$z \cdot w = w \cdot z \quad z, w \in \mathbb{C}$$

2. Addition and multiplication are associative:

$$(z + w) + u = z + (w + u) \quad z, w, u \in \mathbb{C}$$

$$(z \cdot w) \cdot u = z \cdot (w \cdot u) \quad z, w, u \in \mathbb{C}$$

3. Addition and multiplication are distributive:

$$(z + w) \cdot u = z \cdot u + w \cdot u \quad z, w, u \in \mathbb{C}$$

4. Addition and multiplication have unique identity elements $0 = (0, 0)$ and $1 = (1, 0)$, respectively.

5. Every complex number z has a unique addition inverse. Denoted by $-z$.

6. Every non-zero complex number z has a unique multiplication inverse. Denoted by z^{-1} or $\dfrac{1}{z}$.

Which means $\mathbb{C}$ is a field.

We can represent in many other forms. Two of the most commonly for $z = (x, y)$ used are :

$$z = x + iy \quad \text{where } i = (0, 1)$$
$$z = re^{i\theta} \quad r \geq 0\,, \theta \in \mathbb{R}$$
$$z = \begin{bmatrix} x & -y \\ y & x \end{bmatrix}$$

It is easy to see that $i^2 = -1$. We also define the functions $\Re(z) = x$ and $\Im(z) = y$. In the second representation r is the distance from origin and θ is the angle between the positive real axis and the ray passing through z. One can also view complex number as an extension of real numbers in which every polynomial has a root.

Theorem 2.1. *If K is field such that every odd degree polynomial has at a least a root and for all $a \in K$, either $x^2 = a$ or $x^2 = -a$ has a root then it is sufficient to add the root of $x^2 = -1$ to K so that every polynomial has a root.*

For every complex number $z = x+iy$ there exists the mapping $\bar{z} : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ where $\bar{z} = x-iy$ and is called the *conjugate* of z.

Proposition 2.2. *The following properties are satisfied.*

1. $\overline{z + w} = \bar{z} + \bar{w}$.
2. $\overline{zw} = \bar{z}\bar{w}$.
3. $z = \bar{\bar{z}}$.
4. $z = \bar{z}$ *if and only if* $z \in \mathbb{R}$.
5. *The following relations hold:*
$$\Re(z) = \frac{z + \bar{z}}{2} \quad , \quad \Im(z) = \frac{z - \bar{z}}{2i}$$

Another mapping is the *norm* or *modulus* function, $|z| : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{R}$ where $|z| = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}$. Geometrically speaking the norm of z gives the distance of z form origin.

Proposition 2.3. *The following properties are satisfied.*

1. $|z| \geq 0 \quad \forall z \in \mathbb{C}$ *and especially* $|z| = 0$ *if and only if* $z = 0$
2. $|zw| = |z||w|$.
3. $|z|^2 = z\bar{z}$.
4. $|z| = |-z| = |\bar{z}|$
5. *The following inequalities hold:*
$$-|z| \leq \Re(z)\,,\ \Im(z) \leq |z|$$
6. *Triangle inequality:*
$$|z + w| \leq |z| + |w|$$
$$||z| - |w|| \leq |z - w|$$

The point at infinity, ∞, is informally a point that is unboundedly far from the origin. The extended complex plane is defined as $\mathbb{C} \cup \{\infty\}$. Every line passes through ∞ but no half plane contains it.

2.2 Riemann sphere

Riemann sphere is a unit sphere centered at the origin complex plane. We can map every point (except $(0,0,1)$) on the sphere to a point in complex plane by the following bijective transformation.

$$\phi(z) = (x_1, x_2, x_3) = \left(\frac{z+\bar{z}}{1+|z|^2}, \frac{z-\bar{z}}{i\big(1+|z|^2\big)}, \frac{|z|^2-1}{|z|^2+1} \right)$$

Geometrically, this transformation maps every point z to the interestion of the line connecting it to the $(0,0,1)$ and the sphere. Furthermore, we can define $\phi\infty(=)(0,0,1)$.

2.3 Limits and continuity

Let $f : U \to \mathbb{C}$, α be an adherent point of U, and w be a complex number. Then

$$w = \lim_{z\to\alpha} f(z)$$

when

$$\forall\epsilon > 0,\ \exists\delta > 0 \text{ s.t. } z \in U, |z-\alpha| < \delta \implies |f(z) - w| < \epsilon$$

By defining the $\epsilon-$neighbourhood of ∞ to the

$$\left\{ z \,\middle|\, \frac{1}{z} < \epsilon \right\}$$

we can extend the defintion of limit to when α or w are ∞. We say that f is continuous at α if

$$\lim_{z\to\alpha} f(z) = f(\alpha)$$

Definition: A function f is said to be uniformly continuous if

$$\forall\epsilon > 0,\ \exists\delta > 0 \text{ s.t. } z, w \in S, |z-w| < \delta \implies |f(z) - f(w)|$$

2.4 Sequences and convergence

A Sequence $\{z_n\}_{n\in\mathbb{N}}$ is said to be convergent to z if:

$$\forall\epsilon > 0,\ \exists N \text{ s.t. } n \geq N \implies |z - z_n| < \epsilon$$

and it is denoted as

$$z = \lim_{n\to\infty} z_n$$

A sequence $\{z_n\}$ is a **Cauchy sequence** if

$$\forall\epsilon,\ \exists N \text{ s.t. } n, m \geq N \implies |z_m - z_n| < \epsilon$$

If we write $z_n = x_n + iy_n$, since $|z_n - z_m| = \sqrt{(x_n - x_m)^2 + (y_n - y_m)^2}$ and $|x_n - x_m| \leq |z_n - z_m|$, $|y_n - y_m| \leq |z_n - z_m|$, we can conclude that $\{z_n\}$ is Cauchy if and only if $\{x_n\}$ and $\{y_n\}$ are Cauchy sequences. Thus, since for real sequences a Cauchy sequence is convergent then, a complex Cauchy sequence is convergent as well.

Due to similarities between the definition given above and their real counterpart, most results dealing with limits can be easily extended to complex numbers.

A series $\sum a_n$ is absolutely convergent if $\sum |a_n|$ is convergent.

Proposition 2.4. *If the series $\sum a_n$ is absolutely convergent then it can be summed in any order.*

Proposition 2.5. *If double sum $\sum_m \sum_n a_{mn}$ is absolutely convergent then the summation order can be interchanged.*

$$\sum_m \sum_n a_{mn} = \sum_n \sum_m a_{mn}$$

The resulting series obtained is absolutely convergent and converges to the same value.

Definition: Let $\{a_n\}$ and $\{b_n\}$ be two sequences of positive real numbers. Then

$$a_n \equiv b_n \qquad \text{for} \quad n \to \infty$$

if for each n, there exists a $u_n \in \mathbb{R}^+$ such that $\lim_{n\to\infty} u_n^{\frac{1}{n}} = 1$ and $a_n = b_n u_n$.

2.5 Function spaces and power series

A family of functions $\{f_n(x) : X \to Y\}$ converges uniformly to $f : X \to Y$, denoted $f_n \rightrightarrows f$

$$\forall \epsilon,\ \exists N \text{ s.t. } n \geq N \implies d_Y(f_n(x) - f(x)) < \epsilon,\ \forall x$$

if Y is a complete metric space then Cauchy convergence becomes equivalent to uniform convergence

$$\forall \epsilon,\ \exists N \text{ s.t. } n, m \geq N \implies d_Y(f_n(x) - f_m(x)) < \epsilon,\ \forall x$$

$\sum f_n(x)$ converges uniformly if the partial sums $s_m = \sum^m f_n$ converges uniformly.

Theorem 2.6 (Weierstrass M-test). *Suppose that $\{f_n(x)\}$ is a sequence of real/complex-valued functions defined on a set X, and there is a sequence of non-negative numbers M_n satisfying the conditions*

- *$|f_n(x)| \leq M_n$ for all $n \geq 1$ and all $x \in X$*
- *$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} M_n$ converges*

then the series $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} f_n(x)$ converges absolutely and uniformly on X.

Theorem 2.7. *Let $\{f_n(x)\}$ be a sequence of continuous functions that $f_n \rightrightarrows f$. Then f is continuous.*

Chapter 3

Analytic Functions

3.1 Differentiability

Let $f : U \overset{open}{\subset} \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ and z be a point in U. f is said to be complex differentiable at z if the following limit exists.

$$f'(z) = \lim_{h \to 0} \frac{f(z+h) - f(z)}{h}$$

Equivalently, there exists a $c \in \mathbb{C}$ such that

$$f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0) - hc = o(h) \tag{3.1}$$

Differentiation rules are similar to real differentiation and are proved the same way.

f is **holomorphic** if it is differentiable at every point of U. Taking the limit along the real and imaginary axes and equating them gives the **Cauchy-Riemann equations**

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial v}{\partial y}, \quad \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = -\frac{\partial v}{\partial x}$$

Assuming that u and v are twice differentiable, we can see that

$$\begin{aligned} \Delta u &= \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} + \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial y^2} \\ &= \frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial x \partial y} - \frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial y \partial x} = 0 \end{aligned}$$

Which means that u, v satisfy the *Laplace's equation* and thus are harmonic functions.

Theorem 3.1. *If u, v and have continuous first order partial derivatives and satisfy the Cauchy-Riemann equations then $f(z) = u(x, y) + v(x, y)$ is analytic with continuous derivative.*

3.2 Linear transformation

A linear fractional transformation, also called *Möbius transformation*, is a function in form of

$$w = S(z) = \frac{az + b}{cz + d}$$

with $ad - bc \neq 0$. If $c \neq 0$ then $S(\infty) = \frac{a}{c}$ and $S\left(-\frac{d}{c}\right) = \infty$. The inverse of a linear fractional transformation is linear fractional itself and is equal to

$$S^{-1}(w) = \frac{dw - b}{-cw + a}$$

If $ad - bc = 1$ we say that S is normalized and since multiplying a, b, c, d by a non-zero factor does not change the function we can assume that all Möbius transformations are normalized.

Theorem 3.2. *The set of all Möbius transformations $\mathcal{M}$ is a group under composition.*

$$\mathcal{M} = \left\{ \frac{az + b}{cz + d} \,\middle|\, ad - bc = 1, a, b, c, d \in \mathbb{C} \right\}$$

Proposition 3.3. *Give 3 different points z_1, z_2, z_3 there exists a linear transformation that takes to $1, 0, \infty$ in that order. If non of the point is ∞ then*

$$S(z) = \frac{z - z_2}{z - z_3} \frac{z_1 - z_3}{z_1 - z_3}$$

if one of them is ∞ then

$$S(z) = \frac{z - z_2}{z - z_3}, \quad S(z) = \frac{z_1 - z_3}{z - z_3}, \quad S(z) = \frac{z - z_2}{z_1 - z_2}$$

for $z_1 = \infty, z_2 = \infty, z_3 = \infty$ respectively.

Proof. It is clear that S as defined above is such a transformation. To prove S is unique, suppose there is another transformation T that satisfies the condition. Suppose that neither of the points is ∞ and

$$T(z) = \frac{az + b}{cz + d}$$

for some $a, b, c, d \in \mathbb{C}$ with $ad - bc \neq 0$. Consider TS^{-1}

$$\begin{aligned} TS^{-1}(z) &= \frac{aS^{-1}(z) + b}{cS^{-1}(z) + d} \\ &= \frac{a(z - z_2)(z_1 - z_3) + b(z - z_3)(z_1 - z_2)}{c(z - z_2)(z_1 - z_3) + d(z - z_3)(z_1 - z_2)} \\ &= \frac{(az_1 + bz_1 - az_3 - bz_2)z + az_2z_3 - az_2z_1 + bz_3z_2 - bz_3z_1}{(cz_1 + dz_1 - cz_3 - dz_2)z + cz_2z_3 - cz_2z_1 + dz_3z_2 - dz_3z_1} \end{aligned}$$

We know that

$$TS^{-1}(1) = 1, \quad TS^{-1}(1) = 1, \quad TS^{-1}(\infty) = \infty,$$

which implies that

$$\begin{cases} az_2z_3 - az_2z_1 + bz_3z_2 - bz_3z_1 = 0 \\ cz_1 + dz_1 - cz_3 - dz_2 = 0 \\ az_1 + bz_1 - az_3 - bz_2 = cz_2z_3 - cz_2z_1 + dz_3z_2 - dz_3z_1 \end{cases}$$

hence

$$TS^{-1}(z) = \frac{(az_1 + bz_1 - az_3 - bz_2)z}{az_1 + bz_1 - az_3 - bz_2} = z$$

and thus TS^{-1} is the identity and we must have $T = S$. ■

In general we have the following

Proposition 3.4. *For any two sets of distinct complex numbers z_1, z_2, z_3 and w_1, w_2, w_3 there exists a linear fractional transformation that takes z_i to w_i for $i = 1, 2, 3$.*

Proof. We first show that following lemma

Lemma 3.5. *Any linear fractional transformation has at most two fixed points unless it is the identity.*

Proof. It is clear that

$$\frac{az+b}{cz+d} = z \implies cz^2 + (d-a)z + b = 0$$

has at most two solutions unless $c = 0$ and $d - a = 0$. □

Then consider the following linear fractional transformation (interpreted appropriately if any of them is ∞)

$$S = w_1 \frac{(z-z_2)(z-z_3)}{(z_1-z_2)(z_1-z_3)} + w_2 \frac{(z-z_1)(z-z_3)}{(z_2-z_1)(z_2-z_3)} + w_3 \frac{(z-z_1)(z-z_2)}{(z_3-z_1)(z_3-z_1)}$$

Clearly S the required property. Suppose there exists another linear fractional transformation T with such property. We have

$$TS^{-1}w_i = w_i, \quad i = 1, 2, 3$$

which means TS^{-1} is the identity and we must have $T = S$. ■

Definition (Cross ratio): The cross ratio of $(z_1, z_2; z_3, z_4)$ is the image of z_1 under the transformation S that takes z_1, z_2, z_3 to $1, 0, \infty$. That is

$$(z_1, z_2; z_3, z_3) = \frac{z_1 - z_3}{z_1 - z_4} \frac{z_2 - z_4}{z_2 - z_3}$$

Proposition 3.6. *Let $z_1, z_2, z_3, z_4 \in \mathbb{C}$ and T is a linear fractional transformation. Then $(Tz_1, Tz_2; Tz_3, Tz_4) = (z_1, z_2; z_3, z_3)$*

Proof. Suppose $S = (z, z_2; z_3, z_4)$ and $S' = (z, Tz_2; Tz_3, Tz_4)$. Note that

$$ST(z_2) = 1, \quad ST(z_3) = 0, \quad ST(z_4) = \infty$$

therefore $S = S'T$ and for all $z_1 \in \mathbb{C}$, $Sz = S'Tz$. ■

Proposition 3.7. *Let $r, c \in \mathbb{R}$ and $k \in \mathbb{C}$, then the equation*

$$r|z|^2 + k\bar{z} + \bar{k}z + c = 0$$

represents a line if $r = 0$, represents a circle if $r \neq 0$ and $|k|^2 \geq rc$.

The locus of all the points of $r|z|^2 + k\bar{z} + \bar{k}z + c = 0$, if non-empty, is called a circline.

Proposition 3.8. *circlines correspond to circles on Riemann sphere.*

Proposition 3.9. *A linear transformation carries circlines to circlines.*

Proposition 3.10. *The cross ratio is real if and only if the four points lie in a circle or a straight line.*

3.3 Polynomials and rational functions

Theorem 3.11. *If all zero's of a polynomial P lie in a half plane (convex polygon), the all zero's of the derivative P' lie in the same half plane (convex polygon).*

A **rational function** $R(z)$ is the quotient of two polynomials

$$R(z) = \frac{P(z)}{Q(z)} = \frac{a_m x^m + \cdots + a_0}{b_n x^n + \cdots + b_0}$$

We can assume that P and Q have no factor in common. In that case, the zeros of P are the zeros of R and the zeros of Q are called the *poles* of R. We can further define $R(\infty)$ to be $S_R(0)$ where $S_R(z) = R\big(\frac{1}{z}\big)$.

$$S_R(z) = z^{n-m} \frac{a_m + \cdots + a_0 x^m}{b_n + \cdots + b_0 x^n}$$

Then if $n > m$ we say that R has roots at ∞ with multiplicity of $n - m$, if $n < m$ then R has poles at ∞ with multiplicity of $m - n$. If $n = m$ then $R(\infty) = \frac{a_m}{b_n}$. It is now easy to see that the number of roots and poles of R - including ∞ - is the greater of m, n and it is called the *degree* of R.

We can write R in the following form

$$R(z) = G(z) + H(z)$$

where G is a polynomial with no constant term, by carrying out the division. Now let $\beta_1, \ldots, \beta_k$ be distinct poles of R. Then $S_j(\xi) = R\Big(\beta_j + \frac{1}{\xi}\Big)$ is a rational function of ξ and it can be written as

$$S_j(\xi) = G_j(\xi) + H_j(\xi) \implies R(z) = G_j\left(\frac{1}{z - \beta_j}\right) + H_j\left(\frac{1}{z - \beta_j}\right)$$

note that $G_j\Big(\frac{1}{z-\beta_j}\Big)$ has pole(s) only at β_j. Now consider

$$S(z) = R(z) - G(z) - \sum_{j=1}^{k} G_j\left(\frac{1}{z - \beta_j}\right)$$

It can have poles only at $\beta_1, \ldots, \beta_k$ and ∞. R and G_j have poles at $z = \beta_j$, however their difference if finite. R and G have poles at ∞ but their difference is finite as well. Hence S has no poles and thus must be a constant. Incorporating the constant into G allows us to write R as

$$R(z) = G(z) + \sum_{j=1}^{k} G_j\left(\frac{1}{z - \beta_j}\right)$$

which is its *partial fraction decomposition.*

3.4 Conformal maps

A **conformal map** is a transformation that conserves angle and direction. For example every linear $\mathbb{R}^2$ transformation of the form

$$\begin{bmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{bmatrix} = \sqrt{a^2+b^2} \begin{bmatrix} \cos\theta & -\sin\theta \\ \sin\theta & \cos\theta \end{bmatrix}$$

is a conformal mapping since it is a scaling and a rotation, both of which conserve the angle and direction. Let U be an open set in $\mathbb{C}$ and $\gamma, \eta : [a, b] \to U$ be two complex valued curves. Suppose that $z_1 = \gamma(t_1) = \eta(t_2)$ then the angle between γ and η at z_1 is defined as the angle between $\gamma'(t_1)$ and $\eta'(t_2)$, provided that they are nonvanishing. Let $f : U \to \mathbb{C}$ be a holomorphic function then by chain rule

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}f(\gamma(t))}{\mathrm{d}t} = f'(\gamma(t))\gamma'(t)$$

Viewing $w = f'(\gamma(t))$ as a $\mathbb{R}^2$ linear transformation, we can deduce that f is conformal.

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}f(\gamma(t_1))}{\mathrm{d}t} = f'(z_1)\gamma'(t_1)$$
$$\frac{\mathrm{d}f(\eta(t_2))}{\mathrm{d}t} = f'(z_1)\eta'(t_2)$$

Thus given that $f'(z_1) \neq 0$ the angle between γ and η at z_1 is the same as $f \circ \gamma$ and $f \circ \eta$.

Chapter 4

Formal Power Series

4.1 Algbraic definitions

Monoid

A set S equipped with a binary operation $\cdot$ is a **monoid** if it satisfies the following properties:

- For all $a, b, c \in S$, $a \cdot (b \cdot c) = (a \cdot b) \cdot c$.
- There exists $e \in S$ such that for each $a \in S$, $a \cdot e = e \cdot a = a$.

Group

A set S equipped with a binary operation $\cdots$ is a **group** if it satisfies the following properties:

- For all $a, b, c \in S$, $a \cdot (b \cdot c) = (a \cdot b) \cdot c$.
- There exists $e \in S$ such that for each $a \in S$, $a \cdot e = e \cdot a = a$.
- For each element $a \in S$, there exists $b \in S$ such that $a \cdot b = b \cdot a = e$.

If $\cdot$ is commutative then the group is an *Abelian group*.

Ring

A set S equipped with binary operations $+$ and $\cdots$ is a **ring** if it satisfies the folloing properties:

1. S is an Abelian group under $+$.
2. S is a monoid under $\cdot$.
3. $\cdot$ distributes over $+$.

If $\cdot$ is commutative then the ring is called a *commutative ring*.

Integral domain

It is commutative ring with property that

$$ab = 0 \implies a = 0 \vee b = 0$$

Field

A commutative ring that each non-zero $a \in S$ has a multiplicative inverse.

Example 4.1. A field is an integral domain because if $ab = 0$ and a is non-zero then

$$a^{-1}ab = b = 0$$

4.2 Introduction

Let K be a commutative ring. Then the set of formal power series over K is

$$K[[X]] = \{a\}_i \in Ka_0 + a_1x + a_2x^2 + \dots$$

The addition and multiplication can be generalized from $K[X]$, the set of polynomials in K.

Definition (Order): Let $S \in K[[X]]$ then $\omega(S)$ is the least $n \geq 0$ such that $a_n \neq 0$. Furthermore, $\omega(0) = \infty$.

Definition (Summability): Let I be a set of indices then the family $\{S_i\}_{i \in I}$ is **summable** if for each $k \geq 0$, $w(S_i) \geq k$ for all S_i except only a finite number of them. Then we can define S to be the sum of this family

$$S = \sum_{i \in I} S_i = \sum_{i \in I} \sum_j a_j^{(i)} x^j$$

which is sensible since only a finite number of $a_j^{(i)}$ are non-zero.

Proposition 4.1. *Let K be an integral domain, then for any two formal series*

$$\omega(ST) = \omega(S) + \omega(T)$$

Asume that $\infty + k = \infty$ for any finite number k and $\infty + \infty = \infty$.

Proof. If either of S or T is zero then the proposition is true. Otherwise, both $n = \omega(S)$ and $m = \omega(T)$ are finite. Equivalently $a_n \neq 0$ and $b_m \neq 0$ while $a_k = 0, b_l = 0$ for $k < n, l < m$. Therefore,

$$ST = \sum_i \sum_{j=0}^{i} a_j b_{i-j} x^i = \sum_i c_i x^i$$

for $i < m + n$, $c_i = 0$ and $c_{m+n} = a_n b_m$ which is non-zero as K is an integral domain which was what was wanted. ■

Corollary 4.2. *For an integral domain K, the ring $K[[X]]$ is an integral domain.*

For simplicity from now on assume K is either an integral domain or a field.

Consider two formal series

$$S = \sum_n a_n x^n, \qquad T = \sum_m b_m x^m$$

with $b_0 = 0$. Then we can define the composition $S \circ T$ as follow

$$S \circ T = \sum_n a_n T^n$$

To show that it is well defined we need to show that only a finite number of T^n have degree less than k for all $k \geq 0$. Which is clear implied by the fact that $\omega(T) \geq 1$ and by Propostion 4.1, $\omega(T^n) \geq n$. It can easily be shown that

$$\begin{cases} (S_1 + S_2) \circ T & = S_1 \circ T + S_2 \circ T \\ (S_1 \cdot S_2) \circ T & = (S_1 \circ T)(S_2 \circ T) \end{cases}$$

Moreover, if $\{S_i\}$ is a summable family of formal series then

$$(\sum_i S_i) \circ T = \sum_i (S_i \circ T)$$

Proposition 4.3. *For three formal series $S, T,$ and U with $\omega(T), \omega(U) \geq 1$*

$$(S \circ T) \circ U = S \circ (T \circ U)$$

Proposition 4.4. *A formal series $S = \sum_i a_i x^i$ has a multiplicative if and only if $a_0 \neq 0$.*

Proposition 4.5. *We have that if $\omega(T) \geq 1$*

$$\omega(S \circ T) = \omega(S)\omega(T)$$

For two formal series f, g we write $f \equiv g \pmod{T^N}$ if $a_n = b_n$ for all $n = 0, 1, \ldots, N-1$. Cleary $f \equiv g \pmod{T^N}$ for all N is equivalent to $f = g$.

Proposition 4.6. *Suppose $f_1 \equiv f_2, g_1 \equiv g_2, h_1 \equiv h_2 \pmod{T^N}$. Then*

$$f_1 + g_1 \equiv f_2 + g_2 \pmod{T^N}, \quad f_1 g_1 \equiv f_2 g_2 \pmod{T^N}, \quad f_1 \circ h_1 \equiv f_2 \circ h_2 \pmod{T^N}$$

4.3 Formal Derivative

The derivative of a formal series is defined as

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}S}{\mathrm{d}x} = a_1 + 2a_2 x + 3a_3 x + \ldots$$

Proposition 4.7. *The derivative has the following properties*

1. $(S_1 + S_2)' = S_1' + S_2'$.
2. *The Leibniz rule holds*
$$(S_1 \cdot S_2)' = S_1' S_2 + S_1 S_2'$$
3. *if S has multiplicative inverse then*
$$\left(\frac{1}{S}\right)' = -\frac{S'}{S^2}$$

4. *The chain rule holds, if* $\omega(T) \geq 1$ *then*

$$(S \circ T)' = (T' \circ S) \circ S'$$

5. *The higher order derivatives can be defined recursively*

$$S^{(n)} = (S^{(n-1)})', \qquad S^{(0)} = S$$

Then, we can write the formal Taylor series of S *as*

$$S = \sum_n \frac{S^{(n)}(0)}{n!} x^n$$

4.4 Compositional inverse

Given a formal series S we wish to find a formal series T such that

1. $\omega(T) \geq 1$.
2. $S \circ T = X$.

Theorem 4.8. *S has compositional inverse T, if and only if $\omega(S) = 1$. In this case, T is unique and $T \circ S = X$ as well.*

4.5 Power series

A power series is a complex function of the form

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z - z_0)^n$$

Theorem 4.9. *For every power series there exists a number $0 \leq R \leq \infty$, called the radius of convergence, with the following properties*

- *The series converges absolutely for every z with $|z| < R$ and it is an analytic function. The derivative can be obtained by termwise differentiation and it has the same radius of convergence. The convergence is uniform in $|z| \leq \rho$ for $0 \geq \rho \geq R$.*
- *If $|z| > R$ the series diverges.*

Proposition 4.10. *Let f and g be two power series that converge absolutely in $B_r(0)$. Then $f + g$, gf, and αf , $\alpha \in \mathbb{C}$ are absolutely convergent in $B_r(0)$.*

Example 4.2. Let $\alpha \in \mathbb{C}$

$$\binom{\alpha}{n} = \frac{\alpha(\alpha-1)\dots(\alpha-n+1)}{n!}, \quad \binom{\alpha}{0} = 1$$

then the binomial formal series is defined as

$$(1+T)^\alpha = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \binom{\alpha}{n} T^n$$

For non-negative integer α the radius of convergence is infinite but for other values of α the radius is 1.

Theorem 4.11 (Abel's limit theorem). *If $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty}$ converges, then $f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n z^n$ tends to $f(1)$ as z approaches 1 in such a way that $\frac{|1-z|}{1-|z|}$ remains bounded.*

Theorem 4.12.

1. *Let f be a non-constant power series with non-zero radius of convergence. If $f(0) = 0$ then there exists $s > 0$ such that $f(z) \neq 0$ for all non-zero z with $|z| \leq s$.*
2. *Let f and g to be two convergent power series. Suppse $f(z) = f(z)$ for all points x in an infinite set having 0 as a point of accumulation. Then $f = g$.*

Let $f = \sum a_n z^n$ and $\phi = \sum c_n z^n$ with $c_n \in \mathbb{R}_+$ be two formal power series. Then f is dominated by ϕ

$$f \prec \phi$$

if $|a_n| \leq c_n$ for all n.

Proposition 4.13. *Suppose $f \prec \phi$ and $g \prec \psi$ then*

$$f + g \prec \phi + \psi, \quad fg \prec \phi\psi$$

Theorem 4.14. *Let f be a power series with non-zero constant term and non-zero radius of convergence and let g be the inverse of f that is, $fg = 1$. Then g has a non-zero radius of convergence.*

Proposition 4.15. *Let*

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n z^n, \quad h(z) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} b_n z^n$$

be two power series and f is absolutely convergent for $|z| \leq r$ for some $r > 0$ and let $s > 0$ be such that

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} |b_n| s^n \leq r$$

Then $f \circ h$ converges absolutely for $|z| \leq s$.

4.6 Analytic functions

Let f be defined in a neighbourhood of z_0. f is said to be analytic if there exists some power series

$$\sum a_n (z - z_0)^n$$

which converges absolutely for $|z - z_0| < r$ and for such z

$$f(z) = \sum a_n (z - z_0)^n$$

Proposition 4.16. *If f and g are analytic on U then $f + g$, fg, f/g for $g(z) \neq 0$ are also analytic. If $g : U \to V$ and $f : V \to \mathbb{C}$ then $f \circ g$ is analytic.*

Theorem 4.17. *Let $f(z) = \sum a_n z^n$ with radius of convergence of r. Then f is analytic on $B_r(0)$.*

Theorem 4.18. *Let $f(z) = \sum a_n z^n$ with radius of convergence of r then*

1. *The series $\sum n a_n z^{n-1}$ has the same radius of convergence.*
2. *f is holomorphic on $B_r(0)$ and its derivative is equal to $\sum n a_n z^{n-1}$.*

We shall see later that every holomorphic function admits a power series.

4.7 Inverse and open mapping

f is analytic isomorphism if $f : U \to V$ is analytic and V is open and there exists analytic function $g : V \to U$ such that $f \circ g = \mathrm{id}_V$ and $g \circ f = \mathrm{id}_U$. f is locally analytic isomorphism at z_0 or locally invertible if there exists an open neighbourhood U containing z_0 such that f is an analytic isomorphism on U.

Theorem 4.19. *Let $f(z) = a_1 z + \dots$ be a formal power series with $a_1 \neq 0$. We know there exists a unique $g(z)$ such that $f(g(z)) = z$ and $g(f(z)) = z$. If f is convergent a power series, then g is a convergent power series as well.*

Theorem 4.20. *Let f be an analytic function on open set U containing z_0. Suppose that $f'(z_0) \neq 0$ then, f is a local analytic isomorphism at z_0.*

Definition: Let U be an open set then $f : U \to V$ is open mapping if for each open subset $U' \subset U$, $f(U')$ is open.

Theorem 4.21. *Let f be an analytic function on open set U such that for each point of U, f is not constant on a given neighbourhood of that point. Then f is an open mapping.*

Theorem 4.22. *Let f be an analytic function on open set U and f is injective. Let $V = f(U)$ then, $f : U \to V$ is an analytic isomorphism and $f'(z) \neq 0$ for all $z \in U$.*

4.8 The local maximum modulus principle

Definition: f is locally constant at a point z_0 if there exists an open set D containing z_0 such that f is constant on D.

Theorem 4.23. *Let f be an analytic function on open set U. Let $z_0 \in U$ be a maximum for $|f|$, that is*

$$|f(z_0)| \geq |f(z)| \quad \forall z \in U$$

Then f is locally constant at z_0.

Corollary 4.24. *Above theorem also holds for $\Re$ instead of $|\cdot|$.*

Theorem 4.25. *Let f be a non-constant polynomial*

$$f(z) = a_0 + a_1 z + \dots + a_d z^d$$

with $a_d \neq 0$. Then f has some complex roots.